Is the Housing Crisis Preventing Families from Accessing Food Assistance?

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Abstract

Evictions and food insecurity are common among low-income households in the United States, especially households of color and households with children present. However, a growing body of research suggests that eviction may prevent households from accessing the social welfare programs needed to recover from the negative effects of an eviction. In this study, we create a unique dataset of all renters who lived in Michigan from 2010 to 2016 and who received at least one eviction filing. We link this dataset to administrative records including the 2010 Decennial Census and Michigan's records for the SNAP program. Using a lagged outcome model, we show that evicted households experience a two-percentage-point drop in SNAP enrollment compared to their predicated counterfactual. This reduction persists for at least 18 months after an eviction judgment. We find little evidence that an eviction filing without a judgment reduces SNAP recipiency.

Keyword: Eviction, SNAP

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I. Introduction and background

"The rent eats first" captures the role that rising housing costs play in creating food insecurity in the United States. An estimated 3.6 million evictions are filed each year in the United States (Gromis et al. 2022), each of which can profoundly destabilize a family, placing them on a downward trajectory of extended residential instability and health issues (Desmond, Gershenson, and Kiviat 2015; Hatch and Yun 2020). Eviction is not merely a consequence of poverty, but is also one of its leading causes (Desmond 2016). Stable households that experience an eviction are more likely to experience job loss (Desmond and Gershenson 2016), worsened economic circumstances (Collinson et al. 2022), prolonged housing insecurity (Desmond et al. 2015) and a substantial increase in mortality rates (Graetz et al. 2024). The relationship between housing and food insecurity is further captured in their similar sociodemographic profiles: Lower-income families of color, especially those headed by single mothers, are at the highest risk of eviction (Desmond et al. 2013; Desmond and Gershenson 2017; Graetz et al. 2023) and food insecurity (Coleman-Jensen 2010).

Given this relationship, one would expect that households facing eviction would be especially likely to seek out benefits like SNAP. SNAP is the most responsive of all federal programs to changes in a household's material circumstances, with one study finding a six-percentage point increase in usage following job loss by families near the poverty threshold (East and Simon n.d.). However, a growing body of research theorizes that administrative burdens inherent in the design of programs may prevent households from accessing social welfare programs (Herd and Moynihan 2020). Evictions are not just intense experiences associated with high rates of mental duress (Desmond and Kimbro 2015; Kim and Burgard 2022), but the physical loss of housing can also directly interfere with the ability of households to comply with

administrative burdens. Households may be unable to find the necessary documents when they are locked out of their old home. Benefits eligibility formulae dependent on measures like household income may add additional uncertainties following an eviction, when household composition itself is in flux. For those already enrolled, recertification documents may be sent to the old address, leading to a loss of benefits. Using linked administrative data, we examine whether evictions interfere with households' ability to access SNAP.

If evictions prevent families from accessing SNAP, this could have a large effect on program uptake because SNAP usage is concentrated in the same demographics vulnerable to eviction. In 2022, 24.9% of renter households accessed SNAP (versus 7.3% of homeowners). Among renter households with children, SNAP utilization is 36.2%, and among one-adult renter households with children, SNAP usage is at 49.9%. SNAP is among the most received social safety net benefits for renters with children, following only Medicaid/CHIP and free/reduced price school meals.[2] Given the importance of federal benefits to low-income families with children, it is especially important to understand whether benefit disruption following eviction is more common among households with children.

Previous research has found a link between eviction and loss of social safety net benefits, but we do not currently have studies linking person-level records to high-quality administrative data over time. Schwartz et al. (2022) examined the impact of an eviction on Medicaid utilization in New York State. They link patient data from the 2017 NYS Medicaid claims file to publicly available eviction court records data by matching based on address and claims data. They find that eviction was associated with higher odds of disenrollment. Those who remained enrolled saw an

[2] https://public.tableau.com/app/profile/us.census.bureau/viz/SocialSafetyNetBenefits/FilterbyPrograms-Individuals

increase in healthcare expenditures. More broadly, cost-driven moves have been associated with the loss of several benefits among households with children in a cross-sectional study (Leifheit et al. 2024).

We construct a sample of renters in Michigan from 2010 to 2016 using the 2010 Decennial Census; we link these data to administrative data on SNAP recipiency and eviction court records. We find that experiencing an eviction judgment, our proxy for removal from home, is associated with a persistent decline in SNAP recipiency. Three months after an eviction judgment, individuals were around 2 percentage points less likely to be enrolled in SNAP as compared to their predicted counterfactual. This effect is concentrated in Black households and households with children. While outside of the scope of this research, the downstream consequences of disenrollment after an eviction could be large. Eviction and food insecurity are both associated with worsening academic outcomes for children (Bleich et al. 2020:466; Hepburn et al. 2025; Ramphal et al. 2023; Schwartz et al. 2022) and with worsening health for both adults and children (Bleich et al. 2020:466; Gundersen & Ziliak 2015; Graetz et al. 2024).

The rest of this paper is organized as follows: Section II provides details on data and our analytic sample. Section III outlines the methodology, Section IV discusses results, and Section V details our counterfactual analysis. Section VI provides a discussion of our findings and concludes.

II. Data

We begin by using data from the 2010 Decennial Census which collects basic demographic information for all persons living in United States as of April 1, 2010, including renting status. From this we collect all renters as of Census Day and retain information on age, race, sex, whether they ever have children, and urban status. Using the Resident Candidate File (2012-2016), a

longitudinal address file constructed from administrative sources, we drop any renters who did not reside in Michigan during our entire analytic period. We use the Census Numident File (2010-2016) to remove renters who died during the period of our study.

To observe SNAP enrollment, we rely on SNAP administrative data from Michigan. We use the person-month recipiency information, where each person receiving SNAP benefits has one record for every month they receive benefits. Taking effect in October, 2011, Michigan changed rules around sanction penalties for their social safety net programs.[3] These penalties resulted in long-run declines in both SNAP and TANF enrollment (Richard and Bart 2026). To ensure all renters were subject to the same sanction policies, we omit any renters enrolled in SNAP prior to the policy change. We further limit our sample to only include individuals who were between the ages of 18 and 65 in 2010.

The Decennial Census contains information on whether a renter has children when the rosters are collected. We supplement this information with the Census Household Composition Key (CHCK) for the years following 2010. The CHCK uses administrative records to link children, born starting in 1997, to their parents. We focus on linking children to their mothers; previous research has documented higher rates of successful mother-child links compared to father-child links (Bernard, Drotning and Genadek 2024). Children are also more likely to live with their mothers (Kearney 2022).

These data are then linked to eviction court records provided by the Eviction Lab at Princeton University (Desmond et al. 2019). Eviction records were collected either manually or

[3] This change was primarily directed at TANF recipients but has implications SNAP recipients. Recipients' violation of the TANF work requirement received sanctions: three months for a first offense, six months for a second offense, and a lifetime bar for a third offense. SNAP did not have strict work policies, but a violation of TANF's work policies would result in penalties for SNAP.

via bulk extracts from administrative data systems. They were cleaned, stripped of duplicate and commercial eviction cases, geocoded, and validated against publicly available data sources published by county and state court systems. We submitted these records to the U.S. Census Bureau's Person Validation Identification System (PVS), which then assigned Protected Identification Keys (PIKs) using a probabilistic linkage between records based on names and addresses reported in eviction filings.

Each eviction record contains data on case resolution. This allows us to differentiate renters who received an eviction judgment from renters who only received an eviction filing. The eviction *filing* is the initial legal record created when a landlord starts an eviction proceeding against a tenant. An eviction *judgment* is issued after a judge has heard the case in court and issued a decision. Judgments are only issued when cases have not been dismissed and are therefore a good indication that a tenant no longer resides in the property. Filings are a less certain indicator that the tenant was evicted from their home. Filings may not result in a judgment for several reasons. Some tenants will choose to vacate a unit before their court date, but in many other cases the landlord withdraws the filing if the tenant pays back rent or otherwise reaches a resolution with the landlord. Filings are damaging to tenants and are a real indicator of housing insecurity; however, they are a much weaker indicator of an involuntary move than judgments.

We define two potential types of treatment: filing only, which we will refer to as "filing", and judgement. Eviction court records only include information for individuals on the lease. If an individual is listed on a lease, we consider them as having directly experienced either a filing or a judgment. Using household roster information, we construct a group of those who indirectly experienced a filing or judgment. This means that they lived in a household where an eviction action occurred, but they were not listed in court documents. Treatment type is assigned based on

the outcome of the first record (by date) observed in our data. A direct filing indicates that the renter was directly named on an eviction court record where no judgment was issued. A direct judgment indicates that this filing resulted in a judgment entered against the tenant. The indirect sample is comprised of all individuals living in households where an eviction filing or judgment occurred where that individual was not listed on the lease. Because we can only establish co-residency in 2010, we do not present results for those who indirectly experienced an eviction filing (judgment).

We define our control sample as any renter living in Michigan from 2010 to 2016 who do not experience any eviction action directly or indirectly. There are two potential sources of contamination for this group. The first is imperfect eviction records data, as it is possible that those in the control group received an eviction filing or judgment and were unable to be PIKed in our data. The second is that they may have experienced an indirect eviction filing we did not observe because the data were not available. Given that these renters would have experienced a filing or judgment, but are in the control, this is likely to bias our results towards a null.

Table 1 contains descriptive statistics for our analytical sample. Consistent with previous research, those who experienced any eviction action were more likely to be Black, a woman, and have children. They also have higher baseline SNAP recipiency. Figure 1 presents raw trends in SNAP recipiency by judgment status. Panel (a) shows some selection into SNAP prior to experiencing a filing only, and a steady decline in enrollment following the filing. Panel (b) shows that renters who experienced a judgment also increased SNAP enrollment prior to experiencing a judgment. They experienced a much larger decline in enrollment following a judgment.

III. Methodology

A fundamental issue with estimating the causal effect of an eviction is finding a suitable control group. Figure (1) clearly demonstrates selection into SNAP enrollment prior to an eviction action, and previous work has documented clear "Ashenfelter dips" (Collinson et al, 2024) in outcomes leading up to an eviction. Given this, a difference-in-difference strategy is clearly inappropriate. Researchers have attempted to address this in several ways, notably using a judge stringency IV and using renters with filing only as the control group for eviction judgments in a difference-in-differences model. While these methods can allow for clean identification of the effect of an eviction judgment, they cannot estimate the effect of an eviction filing.

We use a lagged outcome model (Powell, Griffin and Woflson 2023), which does not rely on a parallel trends assumption. Intuitively, a lagged outcome model uses untreated units to predict a counterfactual outcome for treated units. This allows for difference in level and trends but requires a conditional mean independence assumption for post-treatment outcomes.

$$E\left[Y_{iT}(0)\middle|D_i = 1, \left(Y_{i1}, \dots, Y_{iT_0}\right)\right] = E\left[Y_{iT}(0)\middle|D_i = 0, \left(Y_{i1}, \dots, Y_{iT_0}\right)\right]$$

In other words, units can have differences in levels and trends in the outcomes, but the relationship between post- and pre-treatment outcomes must be the same across treated and untreated units.

This assumption would be violated if there was an unknown contemporaneous shock that differentially affected SNAP enrollment between the treated and control groups in the post-treatment period. One potential threat is job loss, which is likely to interact with SNAP enrollment. There is a complicated relationship between employment and eviction. Job loss acts as a large income shock, which can lead to an eviction. Eviction has also been shown to decrease employment (Collinson, et al. 2024, Desmond and Gershenson 2016). If a job loss precedes an

eviction, leading to a change in SNAP enrollment, our model matches treated units to control units with a similar trajectory. This is more complicated if job loss occurs after an eviction filing or judgment. While we cannot directly disentangle the effect of job loss and eviction from our estimates, we argue that job loss by itself is unlikely to lead to disenrollment in SNAP. For those enrolled only in SNAP, employment requirements tend to be lenient, so job loss by itself is unlikely to be disqualifying. For those enrolled in both SNAP and TANF prior to an eviction, job loss will not necessarily lead to a sanction, unless they quit or are fired for misconduct. If experiencing job loss after an eviction leads to an increase in the uptake of SNAP, which has been documented in the literature (East and Simon n.d.), it will attenuate our results.

The goal of a lagged outcome model is to construct a predicted counterfactual for treated units. This is done by constructing weights using untreated units. In a case where there is only one treated unit, we would begin by estimating the following equation using only the control units:

$$\hat{Y}_{it}(0) = \hat{\beta}_0 + \sum_{j=-12}^{-1} \widehat{\beta_J}(Y_{ij})$$

$$\hat{\beta} = argmin \sum_{i \epsilon S_0} \left(Y_{iT} - \beta_0 - \sum_{j=-12}^{-1} \beta_j (Y_{ij}) \right)^2 + \lambda \left[\sum_{j=c-12}^{c-1} \left(\frac{1-\alpha}{2} \beta_j^2 + \alpha \left| \beta_j \right| \right) \right]$$

Where $\hat{Y}_{it}(0)$ is the outcome enrollment for individual i in time period t. It is re-estimated for each post-treatment time period. $\hat{\beta}$ is estimated using an elastic net regression (Zou and Hastie 2005), which nests lasso and ridge regression to help mitigate issues of overfitting. Cross validation is used to select the α and λ. We then use this model to predict counterfactual outcomes for treated units.

This is more complicated in our context because eviction filings and judgments are received continuously. Following Powell et al. (2023), we instead define treatment based on the month and year a tenant receives an eviction filing (or judgment). For example, the first cohort is treated (receives an eviction filing or judgment) in October of 2011. We estimate the following equation using the control units, where the time period is defined based on the cohort. For the first cohort, we estimate the model using lagged outcomes for the control group twelve months before October 2011 and eighteen months after October 2011. We reuse the control units for each cohort, shifting the time period to correspond to the appropriate cohort treatment date:

$$\hat{Y}_{itc}(0) = \hat{\beta}_0 + \sum_{j=-12}^{-1} \widehat{\beta}_J (Y_{ij} - X'_{ij}\hat{\delta}) + X'_{iT}\hat{\delta} \quad (1)$$

$$\hat{\beta} = argmin \sum_{i \epsilon S_0} \left(Y_{iT} - \beta_0 - X'_{ij}\delta - \sum_{j=-12}^{-1} \beta_j (Y_{ij} - X'_{ij}\delta) \right)^2 + \lambda \left[\sum_{j=c-12}^{c-1} \left(\frac{1-\alpha}{2} \beta_j^2 + \alpha |\beta_j| \right) + \sum_{k=c-12}^{c-1} \left(\frac{1-\alpha}{2} \delta_k^2 + \alpha |\delta_k| \right) \right]$$

Here, $\hat{Y}_{itc}(0)$ is the predicted SNAP enrollment for individual i in time period t for cohort c. It is re-estimated for each post-treatment time period. We estimate this model using a Binomial distribution, assigning a person to SNAP enrollment if the predicted probability of enrollment is greater than 0.5. $\hat{\beta}$ is estimated using an elastic net regression (Zou and Hastie 2005), which nests lasso and ridge regression to help mitigate issues of overfitting. As with the single unit case, we use cross validation to select the α and λ. We include controls for race (Black versus White), sex, urban status, and whether the renter ever has children, and age. Using the weights constructed in (1), we predict counterfactual outcomes for the treated sample.

We define the treatment effect for an individual, i at time t as

$$\widehat{\gamma_{it}} = Y_{it} - \hat{Y}_{it}(0)$$

Where Y_{it} is the observed outcome and $\hat{Y}_{it}(0)$ is the predicted counterfactual given the weights estimated in (1). We re-estimate this model for each cohort, reusing control units. Cohort-level estimates are then aggregated by calculating a weighted average, where weights are defined based on the number of observations for each cohort. This gives us an event-time style estimate for the average treatment effect of an eviction filing only or judgment. Estimates can be interpreted as the percentage point change in SNAP recipiency t months after an eviction action, as compared to the predicted counterfactual estimate.

Lagged outcome models do not allow for the estimation of standard errors. For inference, we estimate p-values using a permutation-style test as outlined in Powell et al., 2023. We estimate the following equation using untreated units[4]:

$$(\widehat{\gamma_i})^2 = \theta + \rho \sum_{j=T_0+1}^{T} \frac{1}{Population_{it}} + \epsilon_i$$

Given the estimated parameters, we predict the variance for both the treated and untreated units. We then calculate p-values by comparing the placement of the standardized value of $\widehat{\gamma_i}$ relative to the standardized values for other units.

We evaluate the counterfactual two ways: (1) a placebo test and the (2) mean and maximum Absolute Standardized Mean Difference (ASMD) (Cohen 1988, Ho, Kosuke and Stuart 2007). Pre-treatment estimates should be close to zero and not statistically significant. We use the

[4] We impose positive variance.

thresholds outlined in Parast, Hunt, Griffin, & Powell (2020), which suggest 0.1 for mean ASMD and 0.2 for max ASMD.

IV. Results

Figure 2 plots estimates from the lagged outcome model for the eviction filing only sample and eviction judgment sample in panels (a) and (b), respectively. Because lagged outcome models do not produce standard errors, we produce p-values using the method outlined in the methodology section. Shaded points indicate statistical significance at the 5-percent level. Hollow points indicate the estimates are not statistically significant. Month zero is the month an eviction action takes place.

Results for the filing-only sample are small in magnitude, and not statistically significant at any point in the 18 months following an eviction filing. Results for the judgment sample show a steady decline in SNAP enrollment after judgment. Three months after an eviction judgment, renters were 1.8 percentage points less likely to be enrolled in SNAP compared to their predicted counterfactual, corresponding to a 3 percent decline in SNAP recipiency. These results are statistically significant and persist for over a year. Eighteen months after an eviction judgment, renters were 2.2 percentage points less likely to be enrolled in SNAP, corresponding to a 4 percent decrease in SNAP recipiency.

Figure 3 depicts changes in enrollment for Black and White renters. There is some evidence that White renters see a brief increase in SNAP enrollment after experiencing a filing only, but this result is small in magnitude. Black renters saw a persistent, but statistically insignificant, decline in enrollment after experiencing a filing only. Eviction judgments lead to lower enrollment than the predicted counterfactual. Panel (c) shows that White renters saw significantly lower enrollment

starting three to seven months after an eviction judgment. Panel (d) shows that Black renters experience the largest decline in SNAP recipiency after an eviction judgment. Three months after a judgment, SNAP enrollment is 1.7 percentage points, or around 3 percent, lower than the predicted counterfactual. This continues to decline so that 12 months after a judgment they are 4.2 percentage points, or 7 percent, less likely to enroll in SNAP. Eighteen months after a judgment, SNAP enrollment is 5 percentage points, or 8.6 percent, lower than the predicted counterfactual.

Figure 4 depicts changes in enrollment by whether a renter ever has children. There is little evidence that an eviction filing changes SNAP recipiency, regardless of the presence of children. Eviction judgments are associated with statistically significant declines in SNAP recipiency for both renters with and without children. We find that renters without children are 1.4 percentage points, or 3 percent, less likely to receive SNAP three months after a judgment. This decline persists throughout the analytic period, eighteen months after an eviction judgment, they are 1.3 percentage points less likely to be enrolled in SNAP, a reduction of 3 percent. There is some evidence of poor counterfactual fit for this group, so we caution interpretation for these estimates.

Renters with children see a larger reduction in SNAP recipiency than those without children. Three months after a judgment, they are 2.5 percentage points less likely to be enrolled in SNAP compared to the predicted counterfactual (although this is not statistically significant until five months after the judgment). The effect is persistent. Eighteen months after an eviction judgment, renters who have children are 3.2 percent points less likely to be enrolled in SNAP, a difference of 5 percent off the baseline mean.

Figure 5 depicts changes in enrollment by urban status. While there is some evidence that renters in rural areas have higher SNAP enrollment following an eviction filing, these results are mostly insignificant. Renters in urban areas show no effect on enrollment when they experience

filing only. Renters living in rural areas who experience an eviction judgment experience a decline in SNAP enrollment. Three months after an eviction judgment, they are 2.7 percentage points less likely to receive SNAP, a decline of 5 percent. They experience a brief recovery but eighteen months after a judgment they are 2.5 percentage points less likely to enroll, a 4.5 percent reduction. Renters living in urban areas who experience an eviction judgment are also less likely to receive SNAP compared to the predicted counterfactual. Three months after an eviction judgment, they are 1.5 percentage points, or 3 percent, less likely to enroll in SNAP. This reduction in SNAP enrollment persists for over a year. Eighteen months after an eviction judgment, they are 2.2 percentage points (4 percent) less likely to receive SNAP.

V. Counterfactual Results

We evaluate the counterfactual in two ways. First, we present placebo tests by leaving out at least one period and re-estimating the model using only pre-treatment outcomes. These estimates should not be interpreted as average treatment effects; estimates are calculated using both lagged and leading outcomes. If we have constructed a suitable counterfactual, we expect the placebos to be close to zero and statistically insignificant. Second, we estimate the Absolute Mean Standardized Difference (ASMD) for each unit and then calculate the mean and max value by cohort. We follow the thresholds proposed by Parast et al. (2020).

Figures 6-9 plots the placebo test for the main results using a lagged outcome model. Broadly speaking, most samples have relatively small and statistically insignificant placebo estimates. A key exception is the no-children-ever sample, for which placebo estimates are statistically significant in the three months leading up to an eviction judgment. Figure 10 plots the mean and max ASMD in Panel (a) and (b), respectively. The dashed line indicates the suggested threshold. Most samples are well below both thresholds, except for Black judgment and rural filing only

samples. In both cases the max ASMD is slightly above the recommended threshold, while the mean ASMD is well below the recommended threshold.

VI. Discussion and Conclusion

These analyses provide compelling evidence that eviction judgments lead to a sustained loss of SNAP benefits for many households. In the descriptive averages we observe a twelve-percentage point drop in SNAP enrollment from peak enrollment (at the time of eviction) to 18 months later. Relative to the predicted counterfactual, we estimate an overall drop in enrollment of 2.2 percentage points following an eviction judgment. Benefit loss was most severe among Black renters and renters with children. The analyses presented here do not allow us to test explanations for why this is so, but it bears noting that these populations are associated with higher levels of eviction risk (Gershenson and Desmond 2024; Graetz et al. 2023) and higher levels of overall material need. Accordingly, these populations are the most vulnerable to an intensification of food insecurity following an eviction judgment. For households with children, the twinned loss of housing and SNAP could have long-term consequences for education and development (Hepburn et al. 2025; Himmelstein and Desmond 2021).

Importantly, we find that eviction judgments lead to a significant decline in SNAP enrollment, but that eviction filings alone do not. This suggests that housing loss itself—and not the factors leading up to an eviction filing or the associated stress of dealing with that filing—is the mechanism leading to disenrollment. Why would this be so? Further identifying the pathways by which housing loss leads to benefits loss will require further research, but the literature on SNAP enrollment points in several potential directions. By far the most common reason for leaving SNAP is the failure to submit paperwork during a recertification period rather than loss of eligibility (Gray 2019). Research on the SNAP program points to rates of "churn" (a lapse of

eligibility from 1-30 days) as high as 40% (Kenney et al. 2022) and some estimates suggest that "half of former SNAP participants are still eligible when they leave the program" (Gray 2019:179).

How might housing loss interfere with recertification? Most straightforwardly, recertification forms and notices may be sent to old addresses. Households that have experienced an eviction experience increased housing instability for at least a year after the eviction (Desmond et al. 2015), and households overwhelmed by multiple moves over a short time period may not report address changes to the program office or may not report forwarding information to the post office in time to redirect recertification paperwork. Furthermore, households who have lost access to income records and legal identification (which may occur if an evicted household is locked out of their old unit, or if the landlord removes the tenant's possessions to a storage facility or to the dump) may be unable to produce documents necessary for identity and resource verification. For those who wish to recertify in person, households that have relocated away from transit or childcare may struggle to reach a program office. Future research should examine how the relationship between eviction and SNAP disenrollment is affected by simple administrative practices, such as offering automatic re-enrollment or joint enrollment across programs (Dague et al. 2022), the use of email and cell phones to keep in contact with recipients, or the ability to use online portals for recertification.

The social safety net is meant to assist the most vulnerable households, but it is designed with a client—a stably housed client with a neatly defined family unit—in mind. Most Americans embody this most of the time, but this ideal becomes unrealistic for many households at times of severe crisis. The safety net's reliance on this unrealistic assumption for service delivery excludes some households with the most urgent needs.

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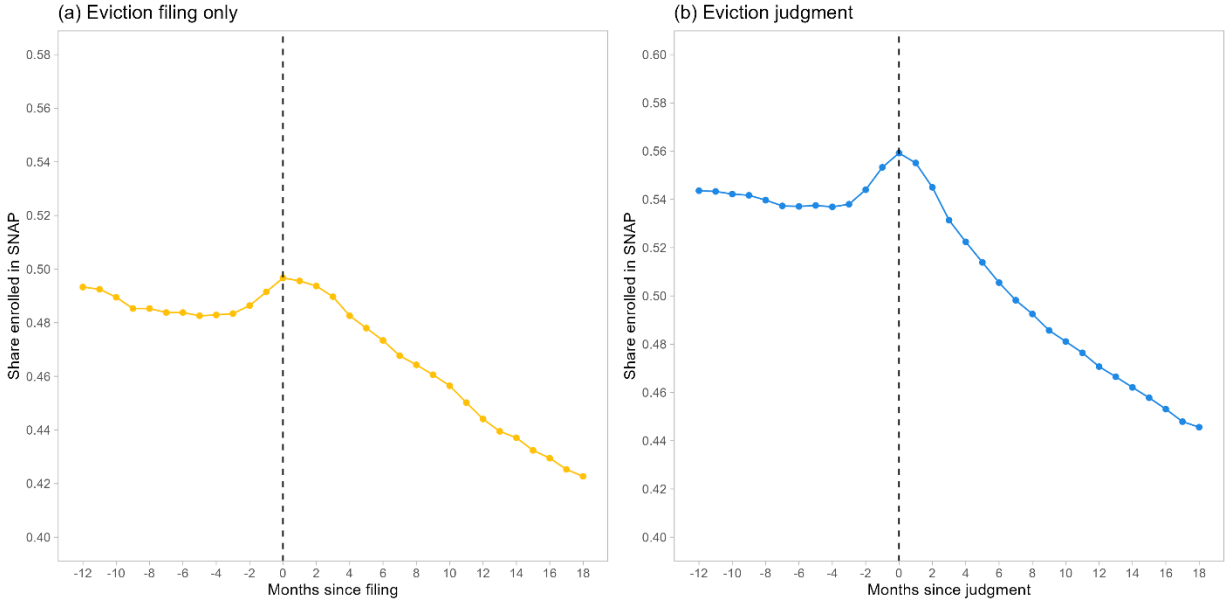
VIII. Tables and Figures

Table 1: Pre-treatment descriptive statistics

Variable	Filing	Judgment	Control
Female	0.67	0.63	0.52
Urban	0.93	0.81	0.81
Black	0.59	0.35	0.2
White	0.35	0.58	0.68
Age	37.04	36.98	38.79
Children	0.57	0.57	0.4
SNAP	0.49	0.54	0.22
N	34,000	23,000	935,000

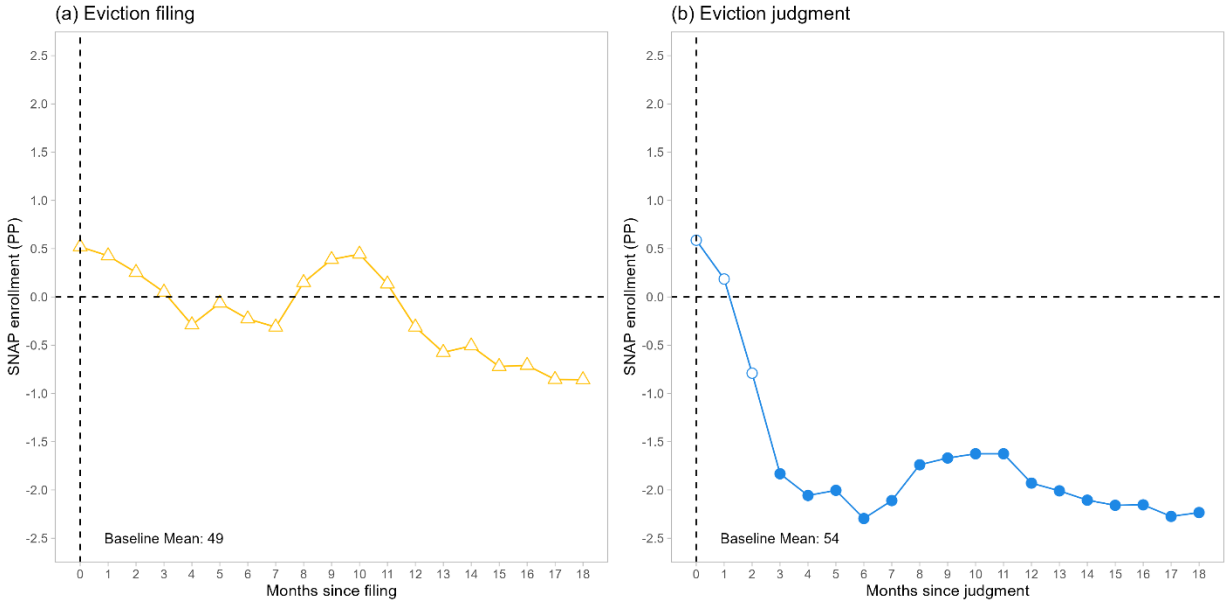
Notes: Table contains pre-treatment means for each sample. Sample sizes are rounded to the nearest 1,000 per disclosure avoidance guidelines. Data is constructed from 2010-2016 eviction records linked to the 2010 Decennial Census, Resident Candidate File, and SNAP Records. Census Disclosure Review Board Approval Number: CBDRB-FY26-CES030-005

Figure 1: Change in SNAP enrollment around eviction action



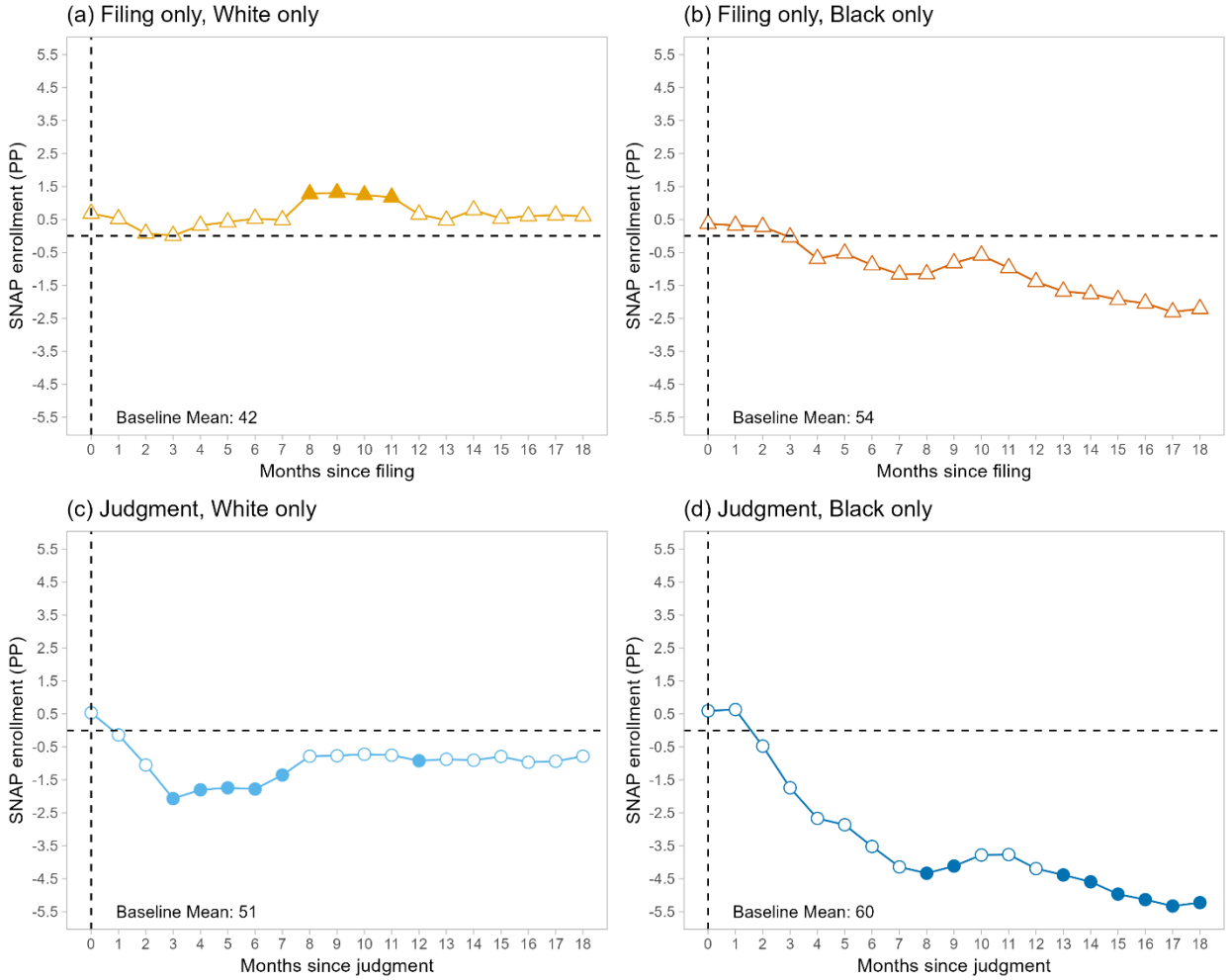
Notes: Figure shows trend in SNAP recipiency around an eviction action. Panel (a) plots trends for renters who experience an eviction filing only, panel (b) plots trends for renters who experience an eviction judgment. Data is constructed from 2010-2016 eviction records linked to the 2010 Decennial Census, Resident Candidate File, and SNAP Records. Census Disclosure Review Board Approval Number: CBDRB-FY26-CES030-005

Figure 2: SNAP recipiency after an eviction action



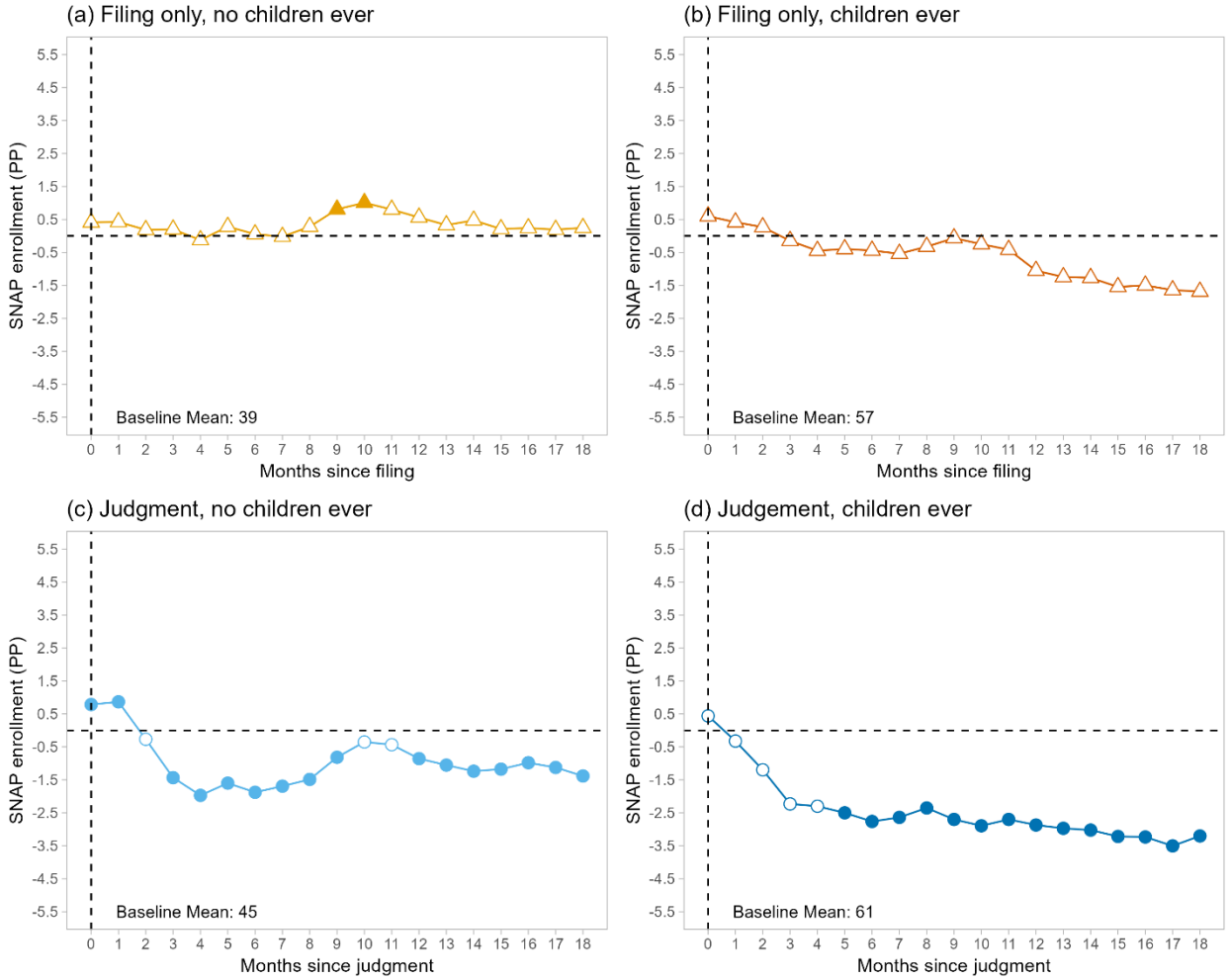
Notes: Figure shows estimates from lagged outcome model on the effect of eviction action on SNAP recipiency. Model includes controls for sex, race, age, urban status, and whether renters ever have children. Panel (a) plots estimates for renters who experience an eviction filing only, panel (b) plot estimates for renters who experience an eviction judgment. Data is constructed from 2010-2016 eviction records linked to the 2010 Decennial Census, Resident Candidate File, and SNAP Records. Census Disclosure Review Board Approval Number: CBDRB-FY26-CES030-005.

Figure 3: SNAP recipiency after an eviction action, by race



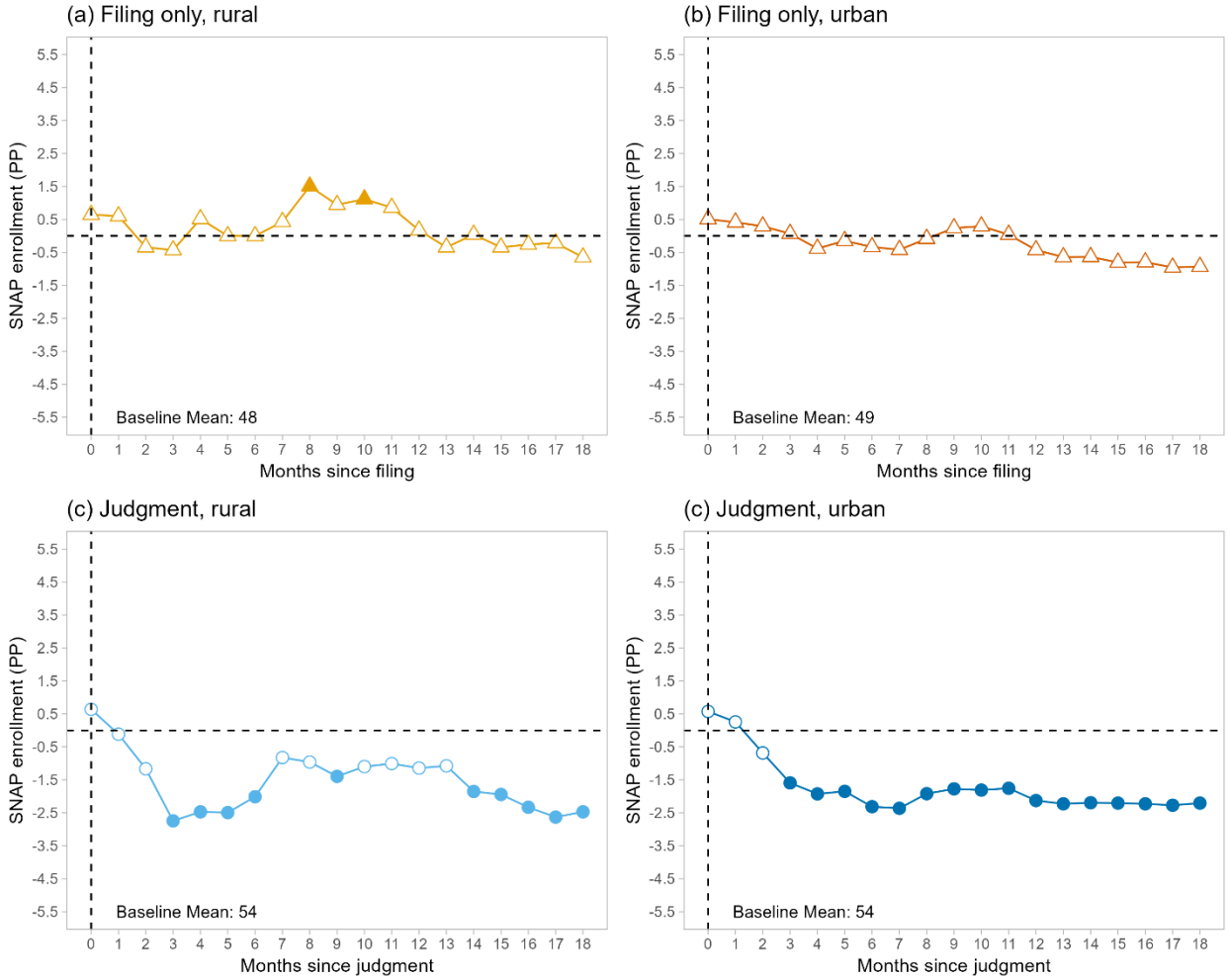
Notes: Figure plots estimates from lagged outcome model on the effect of eviction action on SNAP recipiency. Model includes controls for sex, age, urban status, and whether renters ever have children. Panels (a) and (b) plots estimates renters who experience an eviction filing only, panels (c) and (d) plot estimates for renters who experience an eviction judgment. Data is constructed from 2010-2016 eviction records linked to the 2010 Decennial Census, Resident Candidate File, and SNAP Records. Census Disclosure Review Board Approval Number: CBDRB-FY26-CES030-005.

Figure 4: SNAP recipiency after an eviction action, by fertility



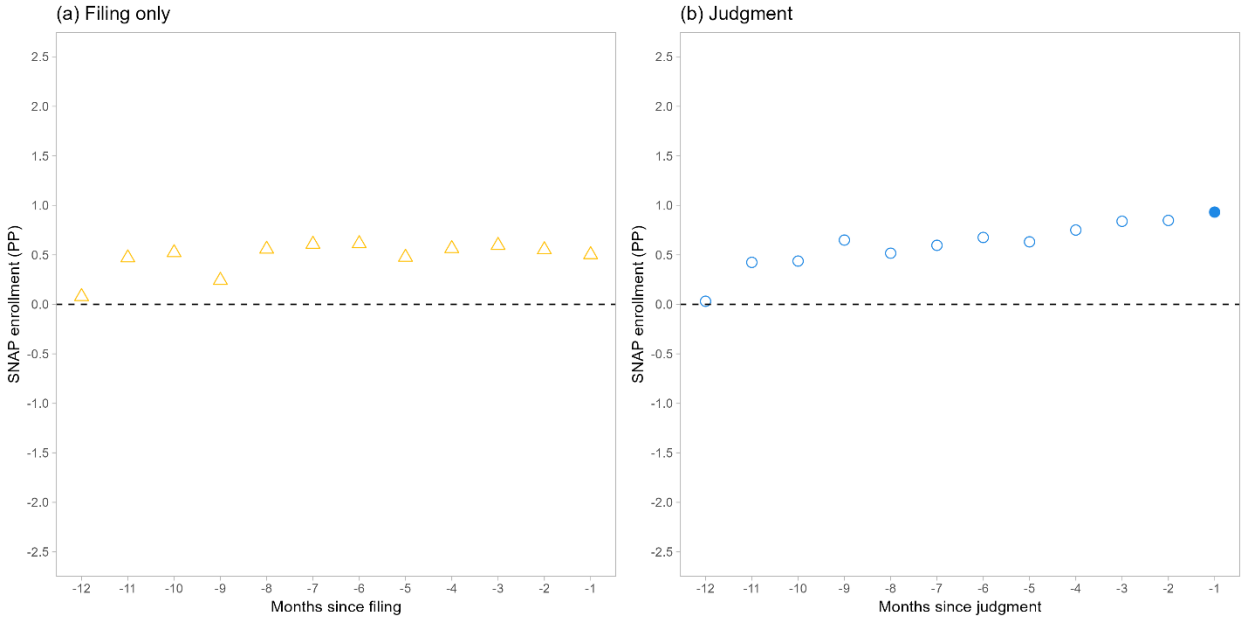
Notes: Figure plots estimates from lagged outcome model on the effect of eviction action on SNAP recipiency. Model includes controls for sex, age, race, and urban status. Panels (a) and (b) plots estimates renters who experience an eviction filing only, panels (c) and (d) plot estimates for renters who experience an eviction judgment. Data is constructed from 2010-2016 eviction records linked to the 2010 Decennial Census, Resident Candidate File, and SNAP Records. Census Disclosure Review Board Approval Number: CBDRB-FY26-CES030-005.

Figure 5: SNAP recipiency after an eviction action, by urban status



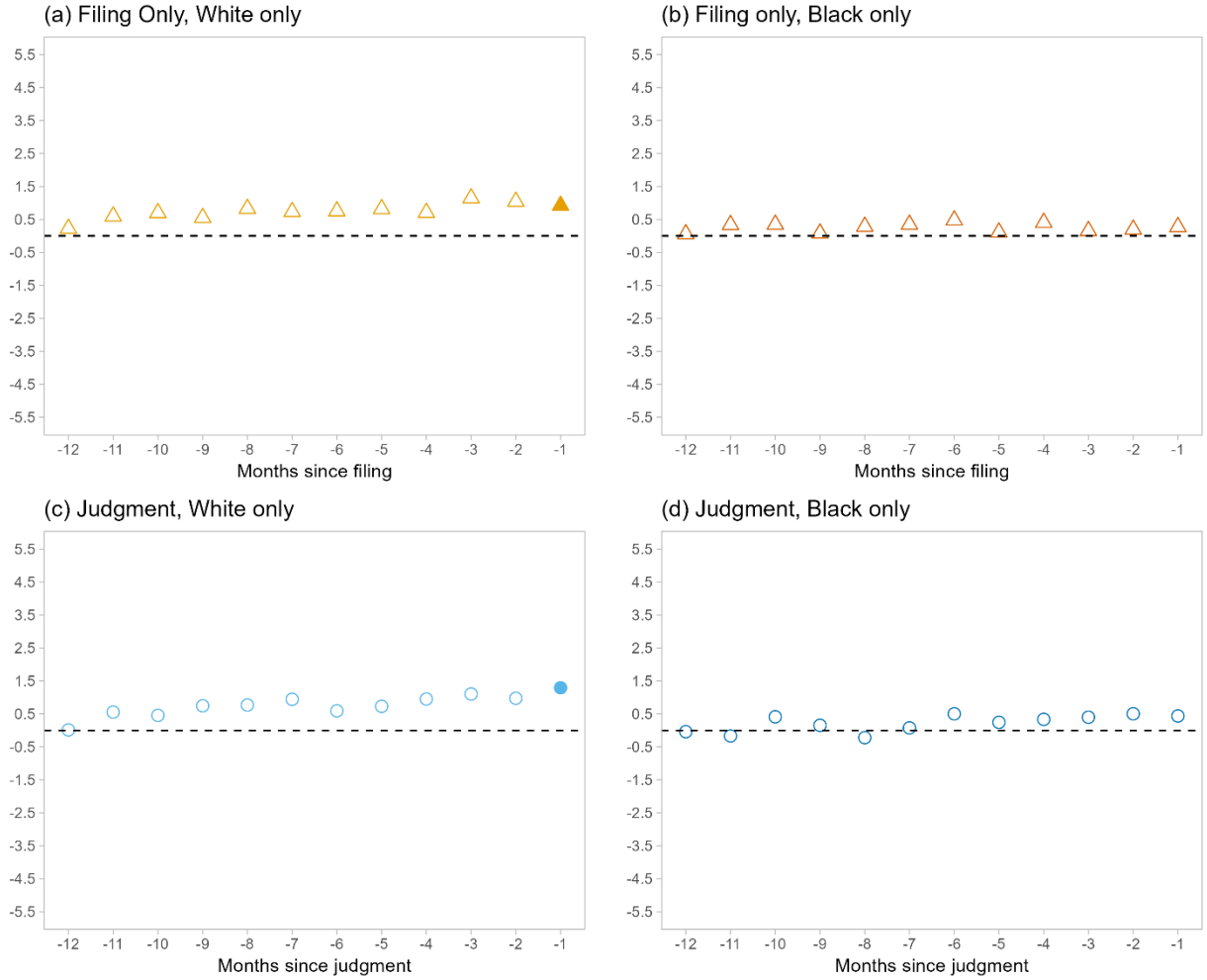
Notes: Figure plots estimates from lagged outcome model on the effect of eviction action on SNAP recipiency. Model includes controls for sex, age, race, and if lessee ever has children. Panels (a) and (b) plots estimates renters who experience an eviction filing only, panels (c) and (d) plot estimates for renters who experience an eviction judgment. Data is constructed from 2010-2016 eviction records linked to the 2010 Decennial Census, Resident Candidate File, and SNAP Records. Census Disclosure Review Board Approval Number: CBDRB-FY26-CES030-005.

Figure 6: Placebo test for lagged outcome model



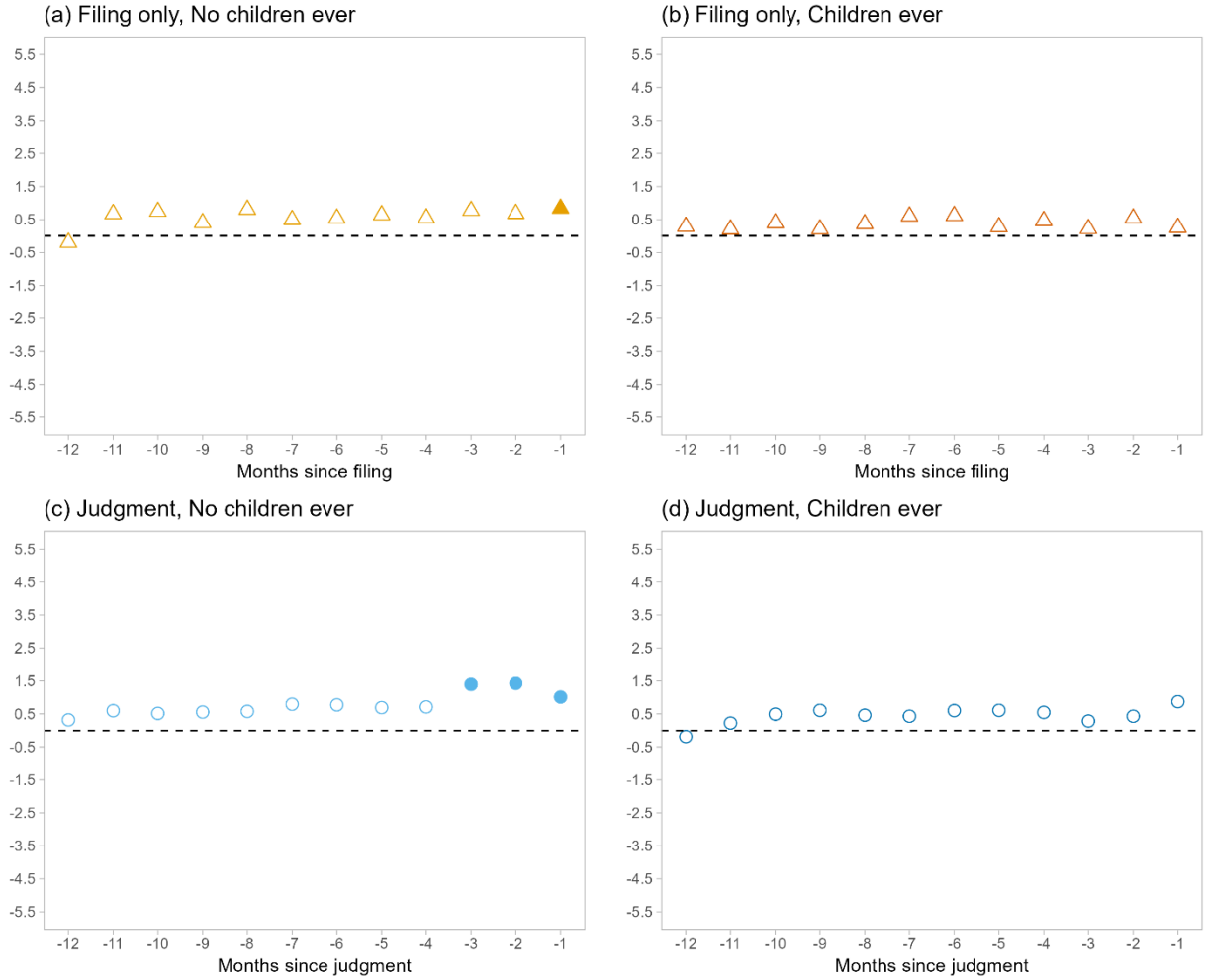
Notes: Figure plots placebo test estimates from lagged outcome model on the effect of eviction action on SNAP recipiency. Model includes controls for sex, age, race, urban status, and whether renters ever have children. Panel (a) plots placebos for renters who experience an eviction filing only, panel (b) plot placebos for renters who experience an eviction judgment. Data is constructed from 2010-2016 eviction records linked to the 2010 Decennial Census, Resident Candidate File, and SNAP Records. Census Disclosure Review Board Approval Number: CBDRB-FY26-CES030-005.

Figure 7: Placebo test for lagged outcome model, by race



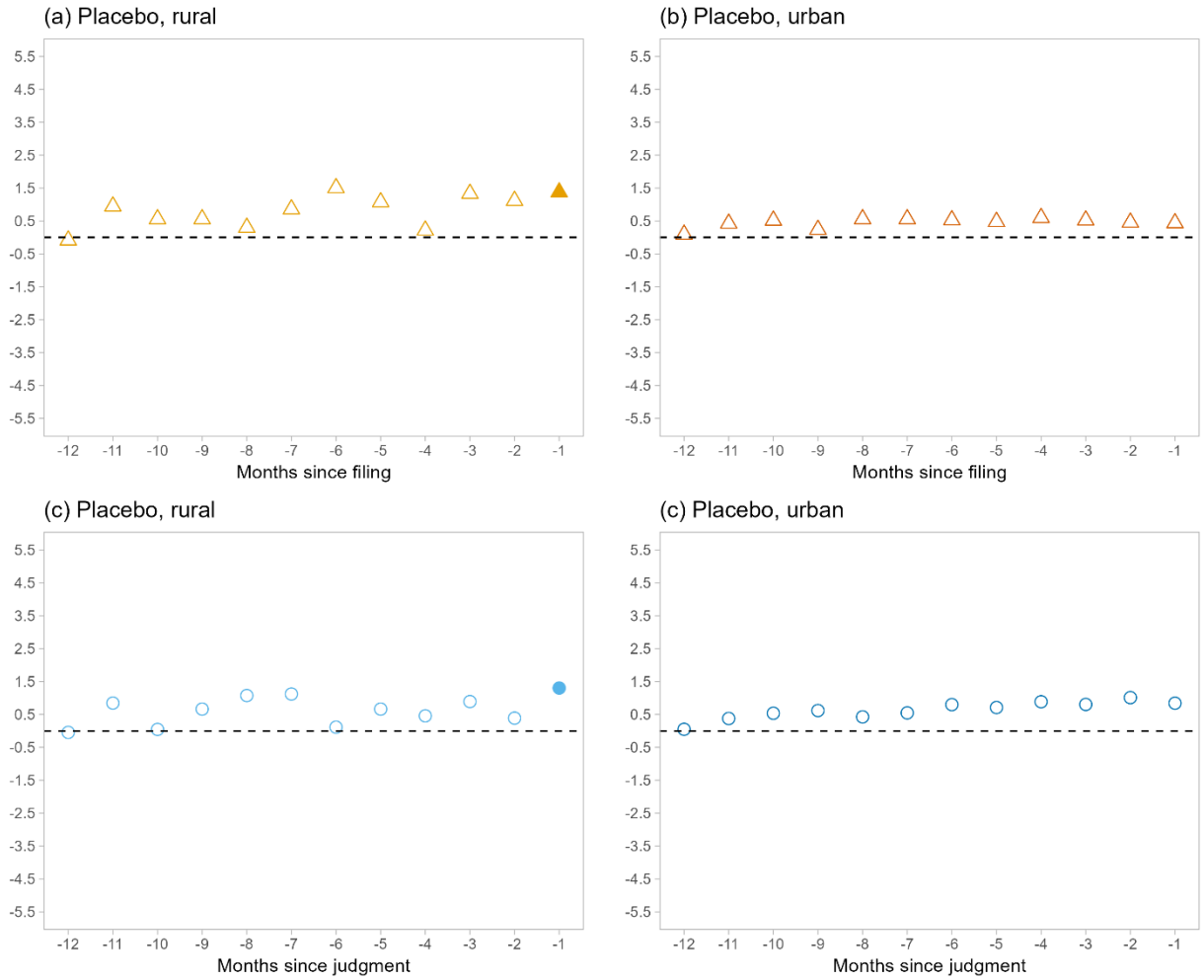
Notes: Figure plots placebo test estimates from lagged outcome model on the effect of eviction action on SNAP recipiency. Model includes controls for sex, age, urban status, and whether renters ever have children. Panels (a) and (b) plots placebos renters who experience an eviction filing only, panels (c) and (d) plot placebos for renters who experience an eviction judgment. Data is constructed from 2010-2016 eviction records linked to the 2010 Decennial Census, Resident Candidate File, and SNAP Records. Census Disclosure Review Board Approval Number: CBDRB-FY26-CES030-005

Figure 8: Placebo test for lagged outcome model, by fertility



Notes: Figure plots placebo test estimates from lagged outcome model on the effect of eviction action on SNAP recipiency. Model includes controls for sex, age, race, and urban status. Panels (a) and (b) plots placebos renters who experience an eviction filing only, panels (c) and (d) plot placebos for renters who experience an eviction judgment. Data is constructed from 2010-2016 eviction records linked to the 2010 Decennial Census, Resident Candidate File, and SNAP Records. Census Disclosure Review Board Approval Number: CBDRB-FY26-CES030-005

Figure 9: Placebo test for lagged outcome model, by urban status



Notes: Figure plots placebo test estimates from lagged outcome model on the effect of eviction action on SNAP recipiency. Model includes controls for sex, age, race, and whether they ever have children. Panels (a) and (b) plots placebos renters who experience an eviction filing only, panels (c) and (d) plot placebos for renters who experience an eviction judgment. Data is constructed from 2010-2016 eviction records linked to the 2010 Decennial Census, Resident Candidate File, and SNAP Records. Census Disclosure Review Board Approval Number: CBDRB-FY26-CES030-005

Figure 10: Mean and max ASMD, by group



Notes: Panel (a) Figure plots mean ASMD by group; panel (b) plots max ASMD by group. Red dashed line set at threshold for mean proposed by Parast et al. 2020. Data is constructed from 2010-2016 eviction records linked to the 2010 Decennial Census, Resident Candidate File, and SNAP Records. Census Disclosure Review Board Approval Number: CBDRB-FY26-CES030-005